CHAPTER-VI

CONCLUDING AND CRITICAL REMARKS

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6.1 Salient Points on *Arthāpatti*:

In our preceding discussion, it is seen that controversy arises among different thinkers, whether *arthāpatti* (presumption) should be treated as an independent and separate instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) or not. It is further noticed that the Naiyāyikas hold that *arthāpatti* (presumption) is a valid cognition, yet they do not admit *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an independent instrument of valid cognition.[185] They argue that for the sake of logical economy (*lāghava*), *arthāpatti* (presumption) should be reduced to inference, viz., *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*. However, it is important to note what we have seen in our preceding discussion, *arthāpatti* (presumption) cannot be reduced to the *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*. As the discussion is being placed in the previous chapter in details, it is not necessary to point out those arguments here to avoid repetition.

However, it is not wise to reduce *arthāpatti* into another instrument of valid cognition taking logical economy (*lāghava*) as the sole cause at the cost of actual facts. A close scrutiny shows that *arthāpatti* (presumption) is an independent and separate instrument of valid cognition. Therefore, to deny the *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an independent and separate instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) is to deny the actual process of presumption. Moreover, each and every school of Indian philosophy is different in view regarding the number of instruments of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) due to their metaphysical standpoint. In this concluding part of this thesis, it will mention that there have different contexts so that one can be bound to accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an independent instrument of valid

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185 "*śabda aitihyānarthāntarabhāvādanumāne'rthāpattisambhavābhāvānarthāntarabhāvāccāpratiṣedhaḥ*." *Nyāya-Sūtra*: 2-2-2.

cognition (*pramāṇa*). Here, we have discussed such contexts one by one, and try to show such instances for accepting *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an independent instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*).

6.2 *Arthāpatti* and *Apūrva*:

In Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school, the concept of '*apūrva*' plays an important role. Still, this concept of *apūrva* cannot be established unless and until *arthāpatti* (presumption) is admitted as an independent and separate instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*). In the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school, causality based on the theory of potential energy. The seed has the potentiality of sprouting, and if the potentiality is lost, then the seed cannot sprout; likewise, fire has a potentiality of burning, and the potentiality of a word is to manifest a meaning. If we accept this theory of potential energy, then thereby we accept the causal relationship. Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā school accepts the *Veda* as eternal and *Vedic* texts are explicit as an injunctive word. One *Vedic* injunction states "*agnihotram juhuyāt svargakāmaḥ*", i.e., one who desires heaven should perform the *agnihotra* sacrifice. According to Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas, every action in presence of auxiliary conditions, being a cause, effectuates its effect immediately. But sometimes it is seen that one does not get the result immediately after the performance of sacrifice. So, we have to assume a tertiary alternative to explain this fact. Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsakas accept these types of tertiary alternative as '*apūrva*'.[186]

Udayanāchārya says an action that was destroyed long back is not capable of producing effect without the help of an intermediary. Therefore, *apūrva* is recognized here as that intermediary condition. But, here, an objection may be raised that *apūrva* itself should be treated as the cause of heaven in such a case. If so, then the performance of sacrifice becomes meaningless. This objection may be countered by the interpretation that sacrifice is the cause of heaven, but *apūrva* acts only as an intermediary factor. According to Udayanāchārya, the production of a result whereby action is destroyed much earlier than its production, is not possible without accepting

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[186] *Śabara-Bhāṣya*: 2-1-5.

the third factor or the intermediary condition.[187] Following the definition of *vyāpāra*, "that which being caused by an entity (*tad-janyate sati*) is the cause of another entity caused by that [first] entity (*tad-janyajanaka*) is the 'intermediary' or the '*vyāpāra*'"[188], we can say that *apūrva* is something which is produced by the sacrifice and becomes the cause of heaven which is the result of sacrifice. For example, a person cuts a piece of wood with an axe. Here, the axe-wood-contact is the intermediary fact. Axe is caused, and the piece of wood is the effect. The contact of the axe with the piece of wood is the intermediary fact. So, the axe-wood-contact is the intermediate for the piece of wood as it is a middle cause between the two. Likewise, *apūrva* is produced from sacrifice, but it is also the progenitor of the result of sacrifice. That is why it is a middle cause between the sacrifice and the result of the sacrifice. Therefore, *apūrva* is called intermediary fact (*vyāpāra*). If we accept power in sacrifice and *apūrva* as an intermediary, we cannot refute sacrifice as a cause of heaven. Because we cannot see the fire in heated water, but still the burning power of fire in this water cannot be denied. Similarly, it can be said that though the sacrifice gets destroyed the *apūrva* which is produced from the sacrifice is yet to be destroyed. In due time *apūrva* gives birth to heaven. *Apūrva*, according to Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas, is nothing but potentiality underlying the activity of performing a sacrifice to produce the result.

Mīmāṁsakas accept the *Veda* as eternal and whatever is mentioned in the *Veda* is true. In the *Veda,* it is said that "*agnihotram juhuyāt svargakāmaḥ*", i.e., one who desires heaven should perform *agnihotra* sacrifice. So, if we do not accept *apūrva* as an intermediary cause, then it fails to establish the injunctive word in the *Veda* which is accepted as eternal and true. The authority of the *Veda*-s stand as proof of the assumption of *apūrva*. *Apūrva* intermediates between the act, the performance of sacrifices and its result. The performance of sacrifice generates some power called *apūrva* in the agent's soul, which gives birth to the result of the sacrifice in due time. Here, a pertinent question may be raised: If *apūrva* is taken as real (*tattva*) then by which *pramāṇa* it is known? In reply, the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas hold that it is the

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[187] "*ciradhvastaṁ falāyālaṁ na armmātiśayaṁ vinā*". *Nyāyakusumānjali*.

[188] "*tajjanyatve sati tajjanyajanakatvaṁ vyāpāraḥ.*" *Tarkasaṁgraha*, p. 291.

assumption by which *apūrva* is established to resolve the inconsistency between performing the sacrifice and attaining the result of the same. In this context, Gangānāth Jhā says,

> "The appearance of the Faculty in question might be said to be proved by Presumption, based upon the consideration that the action cannot be the cause of the final Result, without some such faculty lasting during the time intervening between the completion of the act and the appearance of the Result"[189].

Therefore, *arthāpatti* (presumption) is required to accept as the instrument for the cognition of *apūrva*. It is important to note that to resolve such types of inconsistency, Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas have accepted *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an independent instrument of valid cognition.

The law of *karma* is accepted by all the schools of Indian Philosophy except the Cārvāka school. The Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas are of the opinion that the concept of *apūrva* is good enough in explaining the universe as a whole and the concept of God is redundant for the explanation of the universe. Those schools accept God actually accept two unseen powers: one is God, and the other one is the law of *karma* / *apūrva* / *adṛṣṭa*. But the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas accept only one such unseen power called *apūrva*. This power which is called *apūrva* itself is sufficient to explain the theory of action. Though, the Naiyāyikas disagreed with the Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas on this point. The Naiyāyikas argue that *apūrva* is one type of potentiality and the potentiality is not conscious, but how can an un-conscious principle be accepted for the theory of action (*karmavāda*). So, we have no alternative other than admitting the existence of God. This theory is, that the concept of *adṛṣṭa* admitted by the Naiyāyika stands for *apūrva,* and God guides this unconscious principle. Thus, with the help of God, Naiyāyikas explain the *adṛṣṭa*, but the question is how Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas explain the *apūrva*? Pūrva-Mīmāṁsakas have accepted *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) for explaining *apūrva*.

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[189] Jhā, Gangānāth. *Pūrva-Mīmāṁsā in its sources*, Benares Hindu University, Benares, 1942, p. 257.

6.3 *Arthāpatti* and Semantic-gap:

Mīmāṁsakas and Advaita Vedāntins accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an independent instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*). The Mīmāṁsā school often uses *arthāpatti* (presumption) for the sake of explaining the *Vedic* texts, and if they are not used such type of method, then it should be impossible for them to explain the *Vedic* texts. Moreover, let's look at the examples given by Mīmāṁsakas for accepting *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an instrument of valid cognition. We shall see that all of the examples are not explained without the help of *arthāpatti* (presumption). Here, it is important to mention that the view of Mangala Chinchore is the right one in this context. He accepts *arthāpatti* (presumption) for the sake of semantic-gap,

> "Arthāpatti has something to do with semantic-gap that leads to inconsistency. Semantic-gap forces us to bring in requistic additional information on matter given to us through description or through acquaintance to remove inconsistency".[190]

Advaita Vedāntins accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an instrument of valid cognition to explain the *Vedāntic* texts. For example, the *Upaniṣad*-s describe the creation of this world with the help of the *Brahman* and again it is stated that *Brahman* is alone real. This inconsistency is resolved by assuming that the creation of this world is not real, but apparent (*vivarta*) as the shell appears as silver. Here. Advaita Vedāntins assume the existence of *māyā* as the power of the *Brahman* for resolved such conflict, and such type of assumption is called *arthāpatti* (presumption). *Arthāpatti* is also required to fill the semantical gap between sentences. There are cases where a semantical gap between sentences is observed, and *arthāpatti* (presumption) has a role to resolve such types of semantical gaps. Therefore, one should accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) to fill the semantic gap between sentences.

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[190] Chinchore, Mangala. '*Arthāpatti*', In *Annals*, Vol. LXV, The Bhandarkar Oriental Research Institute, Pune, 1984, p. 101.

6.4 *Arthāpatti* and *Śabda - Lakṣaṇā*:

In this section, we have discussed *śabda pramāṇa* in brief followed by Nyāya, Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā, Prābhākara Mīmāṁsā, and Advaita Vedānta; and have tried to bring in light the similarities and dissimilarities on it. Furthermore, most of the philosophers have accepted *lakṣaṇā* as a *vṛtti* which comes under the discussion of *śabda pramāṇa*. Questions of the following type may occur: What is the relationship between *lakṣaṇā* and *arthāpatti*? Can *lakṣaṇā* be understood through *arthāpatti*? Another significance of this section is that all these three schools (Nyāya, Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā, and Advaita Vedānta) have accepted two sorts of *śabda pramā*, i.e., *laukika* and *Vedic*. However, Prābhākara Mīmāṁsakas accept only one sort of *śabda*, i.e., *Vedic śabda*. Moreover, another point is that if Naiyāyikas reduce *arthāpatti* into *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna* for the sake of logical economy (*lāghava*), can *śabda* be taken as an independent instrument of valid cognition? *Śabdapramāṇa* may be included under *parārthānumāna* as this is originated by a person who is also trustworthy, and this can be made possible only for the sake of logical economy of thought.

Naiyāyikas accept *śabda pramāṇa* (verbal testimony) as a distinct instrument of valid cognition. Gautama states the definition of *śabda pramāṇa* as *śabda* is the instruction (*upadeśa*) of an *āpta* (trustworthy person).[191] Again the commentator Vātsyāyana says that *āpta* is a person who has immediate cognition of *dharma* (the moral law), perceives an object as it is, and feels an urge to communicate the same to the fellow beings out of any compulsion.[192] Statements of such a trustworthy person is the instrument of verbal testimony (*śabda pramāṇa*). Annaṁbhaṭṭa also says that statement of a trustworthy person is called *śabda pramāṇa*.[193] The person who has known the object in its form as such and is capable of expressing such cognition as

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[191] "*āptopadeśa śabdaḥ*." *Nyāya-Sūtra*: 1-1-7.

[192] "*āptaḥ khalu sākṣātkṛtadharmmā yathādṛṣṭasyārthasya cikhyāpayiṣayā prayukta upadeṣṭā*." *Nyāya-Sūtra-Bhāṣya*: 1-1-7.

[193] "*āptavākyaṁ śabdaḥ*." *Tarkasaṁgraha*: 66.

such, is called *āpta*.[194] It is necessary to mention that the statement of *āpta* is the only kind of *śabda pramāṇa*, but statement of any person is not *śabda pramāṇa*. The *āpta* or *āpti* (the trustworthy person) must be devoid from *bhrama* (i.e., the lack of cognition of the object or reversely known the object), *pramāda* (i.e., inattention), *vipralipsā* (intention to cheat the hearer) and *karaṇāpātav* (the weakness or incapability of sense-organ). The person who is free from these four sorts of faults, and who represents cognition as its valid form is called *āpta* or *āpti*. The statements of such type person are called *śabda pramāṇa*, and the cognition of the sentence is called *śābdabodha*. However, it is shown that in the case of *parārthānumāna*, having *svārthānumāna* the person presents his conclusion to the other person through five sentences. So, the condition of *āptatva* (trustworthiness) is also there. Therefore, *āptatva* has existed already in *anumiti* (inferential cognition).

The sentence is the combination of words; that are mutually related to each other. Say, for example, when a person says 'bring the cow'. The words that are mutually related to each other have the potentiality (*śakti*) to denote a sentence. Again, *śakti, according to* Naiyāyikas like Annaṁbhaṭṭa, Visvanatha, etc., is the will of God like 'such a thing is to be understood from such a word'.[195] Thus, *śakti* is an ability to produce cognition, and such ability produced the cognition of the specific object. The relation between a word and its meaning is called *vṛtti*. *Vṛtti* is of two sorts, according to Naiyāyika, viz. *śakti* and *lakṣaṇā*.

Annaṁbhaṭṭa says *vṛddha-vyavahāra* (the practice of experienced persons) is the means to produce *śābdabodha*. This can be illustrated with the help of the previous example, i.e., 'bring the cow'. The elderly-speaker (*uttama-vṛddha*) says to the elderly-hearer (*madhyama-vṛddha*) that 'bring the cow', and the activity of the elderly-hearer is observed by a child with a curiosity to know (*vyutpitsuḥ bālaḥ*). Again, the elderly speaker (*uttama-vṛddha*) says to the elderly-hearer (*madhyama-vṛddha*) that 'bring the horse and bind the cow'. Through the listening of such words

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194 "*āptaḥ tu yathārthavaktā*". Ibid.

195 "*vākyaṁ padsamūhaḥ; yathā, 'gām ānaya' iti. śaktam padam. 'asmāt padāt ayam arthaḥ boddhavyaḥ' iti īśvarasaṁketaḥ śaktiḥ*." Ibid.

and the activity, the child comes to know by inclusion (*āvāpa*) and exclusion (*udvāpa*) that the exact meaning of the words 'cow' and 'horse' into the specific individuals of cow and horse respectively with the class-character (cow-ness and horse-ness). According to Annaṁbhaṭṭa, the cognition of use of word *vis-a-vis* sentence is possible in this way. However, other Naiyāyika does not accept *vṛddha-vyavahāra* (the practice of experienced persons) as the only means to produce *śābdabodha*. Viśvanātha, the author of *Bhāṣāpariccheda*, has mentioned six sorts of means for producing the *śābdabodha*, viz., *vyākaraṇa*, *upamāna*, *koṣa*, *āptavākya*, *vṛddha-vyavahāra*, *vakyaśeṣa*, *vivṛti*, and *sānnidhyatvah siddha padasya*.[196]

Śakti is the direct meaning of an object. However, when someone enables to capture the meaning of a sentence through *śakti*, the necessity for second *vṛtti*, i.e., *lakṣaṇā* arises. *Lakṣaṇā* is also one sort of *vṛtti* to operate between a word and its meaning. However, *lakṣaṇā* operates the meaning of a word indirectly in the sense that the direct meaning being inconsistent it gets its meaning which is related to *śakti*.[197] Viśvanātha states the definition of *lakṣaṇā* as "*lakṣaṇā śakyasambandhastātparyānupapattitaḥ*".[198] The relation with the denotative function, which is assumed due to the lack of compatibility, in reality, is called *lakṣaṇā*. He wants to refer to *lakṣaṇā* as the relation to that denotative function, which is not directly related. The meaning which is attained through the denotative function (*śakti*) is called *śakyārtha*. The relation of such denotative function (*śakti*) is *lakṣaṇā* (connotative function). One can remember the meaning of the word and by which the *śābdabodha* is produced, like the denotative function (*śakti*). This can be illustrated through the help of an example: '*gaṅgāyāṁ ghoṣaḥ*', i.e., there is a cowherd colony in the *Gaṅges*. Now, the word '*Gaṅgā*' denotes a stream of the river, and '*ghoṣa*' denotes to cowherd colony. However, it is impossible to stay in a stream of a river of

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196 "*śaktigrahaṁ vyākaraṇopamānakośāptavākyad vyvahārataśca.*
vākyasya śeṣād vivṛtevardanti sānnidhyataḥ siddhapadasya vṛddhāḥ."
- *Siddhāntamuktāvalī-tīkā* of *Kārikā*: 81.

197 "*śakyasaṁbandhaḥ lakṣaṇā*". *Tarkasaṁgraha-Dīpikā*: 66

198 *Bhāṣāpariccheda*, *Kārikā*: 82 (i).

a cowherd colony. To remove such inconsistency, one assumes that the bank of the river is the intended meaning of the word '*Gaṅgā*' in this context. Such an assumption is possible due to the proximity of the bank with the stream of the river, and the cowherd colony can be situated on the bank of a river. Similarly, 'allow the entry of the sticks' (*yaṣṭīḥ praveśay*), 'protect the curd from the crows' (*kākevyaḥ dadhi rakṣyatam*), etc. Moreover, there are mainly three sorts of *lakṣaṇā* accepted by the Naiyāyikas as well as Advaita Vedāntins, viz., *jahatlakṣaṇā*, *ajahatlakṣaṇā*, and *jahatajahatlakṣaṇā*.[199]

The point what is mentioned above is that *lakṣaṇā* is one sort of *vṛṭṭi* which is assumed to remove the inconsistency between a word and its meaning what we have found through *abhidhā*. *Arthāpatti* is applied to reconcile the inconsistency of what is happening either directly or indirectly. So, from the above, we may say that *arthāpatti* is necessary to reconcile the inconsistency between a word and its meaning through *abhidhā* and *lakṣaṇā*. Now, a question may arise: How one can apply *lakṣaṇā* to produce consistency between the word and its meaning? Is it *arthāpatti*? The answer is possibly so, the metaphorical meaning of a sentence is the outcome of *arthāpatti pramāṇa*. *Lakṣaṇā* is used with the help of *arthāpatti* in request of meaning (*tātparya*). Now, the question comes: How can *tātparya* of a sentence be determined? *Tātparya* can be determined through the help of *arthāpatti*. Therefore, *arthāpatti* plays a vital role to determine the connotative meaning of sentences.

Another point is that we have already perceived or observed that there is a necessity to use *śabda* in the case of *parārthānumāna*. The person, who has acquired the cognition of an object through the help of perception and invariable concomitance, has uttered the cognition step by step through the *pañcavayava*. Now, the question arises: is the person *āpta*? If so, then the sentence used by the person is also *āpta vākya*. Hence, in that case, the cognition of *śabda* is also present. How can one accept verbal cognition as a distinct instrument of valid cognition? Because Naiyāyika emphasizes the logical economy (*lāghava*) to ignore the much. So, why in that case, verbal cognition is accepted as an independent instrument of valid cognition? There

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[199] Viśvanātha mentions the name as *jahatsvārthalakṣaṇā*, *ajahatsvārthalakṣaṇā*, and *jahatajahatsvārthalakṣaṇā*.

are also some other points to accepting verbal cognition as an independent instrument of valid cognition. Likewise, the verbal cognition, there has also been sufficient point to accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) as a distinct instrument of valid cognition. Therefore, one should accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an independent instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*).

6.5 *Arthāpatti* in Kantian Philosophy:

While reading Rasvihary Das's book "*A Handbook to Kant's Critique of Pure Reason*" page no. 128 to 131 (to quote) "The Ground of the Distinction of all Objects in General into Phenomena and Noumena" of Kant's first Critique (1781), "The categories themselves, however, do not mean that they are forms of sensible things. They can be in a way understood apart from the conditions of sensibility…"[200] We know the objects through the help of twelve categories, and Kant calls that knowledge as '*phenomena*'. *Phenomena* are distinguished from the *noumena*, which are being as such. But this being as such is unknown and unknowable. Again, the form of objects is a-priori, which is also the form of knowledge, and through this form, we know the object. For Kant, the categories themselves are not forms of sensible things. A question may arise: how can we know the categories apart from the forms of sensible things? The possible response is that this knowledge can be possible through the *arthāpatti*. Therefore, the concept of *arthāpatti* plays an important role to know the *noumena* in Kantian philosophy.

Again, for Kant, "…They are, therefore, said to have a transcendental *significance*, but no transcendental use. What is meant is that the categories, which are really the ways of combining the manifold, have a meaning of their own, which has no necessary reference to the manifold of sense with which alone we are acquainted. This is their transcendental significance. But this meaning does not enable us to make use of the categories anywhere else except within the limits of

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[200] Das, Rasvihary. *A Handbook to Kant's Critique of Pure Reason*, Progressive Publishers, Kolkata, 2013, p. 129.

possible sense-experience, for the simple reason that the manifold to be combined by them is available for us only within sense-experience. This is how they have no transcendental use."[201] A question may arise: how can we know that categories have a transcendental significance as they have no transcendental use? We know through the help of *arthāpatti* that categories have a transcendental significance.

Kant explains categories as the forms of thought which is distinguished from the forms of intuition. These categories are not dependent on our sensibility. Kant says, "…if what is given to us in sense-experience is called appearance or *phenomena*, then by contrast with it, what is not so given, but is merely thought, maybe called *noumena*. The very idea of appearance carries us to the idea of something that appears. What appears must be something in itself so that it may appear in our sense-experience. The sensed appearance must be referred to some unsensed being which is thought…"[202] Now, one may say that how can the thought of the unsensed take place? To us, the thought of the unsensed takes place in Kant's view as an alternative that is comparable with the concept of *arthāpatti*.

The background of acceptance of *arthāpatti* in Advaita Vedāntins is that Advaita Vedāntins explain the creation of this world with the help of *Brahman* and again says that *Brahman* is alone real. This inconsistency is resolved by assuming that the creation of this world is not real, but apparent (*vivarta*) as a shell sometimes appears as silver. Here, Advaita Vedāntins assume the existence of *māyā* as the power of the *Brahman* for resolving such conflict, and such type of assumption is called *arthāpatti*. Similarly, in Kant's philosophy, he describes the reality of this world as the phenomenon known by the categories. But the categories are themselves the forms of thought. How can we know the forms of thought? This knowledge of the forms of thought is possible through the *arthāpatti.* We may describe the *noumena* in the light of the *Brahman* in terms of Vedāntins, but the difference is that the knowledge of the *Brahman* is possible (*Brahman-sākṣātkāra*), but for the case of *noumena* it is not. When Kant describes the object, we may be denoted it as '*jagat*' of Vedāntins. The

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[201] Ibid.

[202] Ibid., pp. 129-130.

power of the *Brahman* produces this '*jagat*', i.e., *māyā*. One can be free from *māyā* by the knowledge of ultimate reality. Still, *noumena* are unknown and unknowable, and that is why it is stated, "… the unsensed noumena can be thought only as something unknown, and so the actual knowledge we can ever attain through understanding is always confined within the sphere of appearance or sense-experience".[203]

According to Kant, scientific knowledge has two necessary characteristics, viz. necessity, and novelty. Kant, being a critique of both rationalists and empiricists, advocates for synthetic a-priori knowledge as scientific knowledge as it fulfills the criteria of having necessity and novelty in it. A critical analysis on the methods of Kant's philosophy shows that the conception of presumption is necessarily related to his philosophy as he has mentioned the two characteristics of scientific knowledge what is discussed earlier. (*Arthāpatti* fulfills the necessary characteristics of knowledge, viz. necessity, and novelty.)

Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā and Advaita Vedānta schools, those schools accept necessity and novelty as the characteristics of valid cognition (*pramā*). The Bhāṭṭa Mīmāṁsā school defines valid cognition as "*pramā cājñātatattvārthajñānamevātra bhidyate*".[204] There are two characteristics that qualify this definition. First, *pramā* must be the cognition of an object which was not known previously (*ajñāta*),[205] that is there must be something new content in valid cognition what is called novelty in Kantian philosophy, and secondly, the cognition necessarily be of an object as it is (*tattva*) what is called necessity in Kantian philosophy. Like Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa, Dharmarājā Adhvarīndra also defines *pramā* in his *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā* as "*tatra smṛti-vyāvṛttaṁ pramātvamanadhigatāvādhitārthaviṣayaka-jñānatvam*"[206]. According to this definition, *pramā* (valid cognition) is different from *smṛti* (remembrance) and is

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[203] Ibid., p. 131.

[204] *Mānameyodaya*: 3, p. 2.

[205] "*ajñātapadenātra jñātabiṣaiayoḥ sṛtyanubādayornirāsaṁ*." *Mānameyodaya*: 4, p. 6.

[206] *Vedānta-Paribhāṣā*, pp. 7-9.

characterized by twofold properties of truth (*avādhitārtha*) and novelty (*anadhigata*) that is compared with the necessity and novelty of Kant's philosophy.

With regard to two characteristics of scientific knowledge in Kant's terminology and *pramā*, for the Bhāṭṭa and Advaita concept, there is a similarity between the two (Western and Indian Philosophy) philosophical systems and *arthāpatti* being accepted as *pramā* by the Bhāṭṭa's and Advaita's the above-mentioned characteristics are found in it.

We assume the existence of the forms of thought and also *noumena* for Kant and *māyā* for Advaitins through *arthāpatti*. So, there is a conceptual similarity. But the difference is: Advaitins have accepted *arthāpatti* as an instrument of valid cognition, whereas Kant, is bound to accept the existence of the forms of thought and *noumena* through such type of instrument of valid cognition. This difference is stayed due to their metaphysical background. In this way, it can be shown that there is a conceptual similarity of *arthāpatti* with the Western concept of the presumption that is available in Kant's philosophy. We have just presented the conceptual observation of the history of Philosophy and tried to realize the Philosophy as there is a conceptual similarity between *arthāpatti* in Indian and Kant's philosophy.

6.6 *Arthāpatti* and Disjunctive Syllogism:

A student of Western philosophy can explain *arthāpatti* (presumption) through the help of disjunctive syllogism. The form of disjunctive syllogism is:

$$\begin{array}{l} p \vee q \\ \sim p \\ \therefore q \end{array}$$

The concrete example is, like, either Arindam will go or Anirban will go.

Arindam will not go.

Therefore, Anirban will go.

Keeping in mind form of Disjunctive Syllogism the two examples of *arthāpatti* (presumption) cited earlier may be formulated as follows:

(1) 'A man who is stout eats either by day or by night.
This stout man does not eat during day time.
Therefore, he eats at night.'

And

(2) 'Devadatta who is alive is either at home or out.
Devadatta is not at home.
Therefore, he is outside of the home.'

If we critically examine these examples, we can see that all the above examples have the same form of disjunctive syllogism. However, it is important to note that the problem is concerned with the first premise in both instances of *arthāpatti* (presumption). The first example of *arthāpatti* (presumption) reads as '*pīno Devadatta divā na bhuñkte*', but in this sentence, there is no mention of a stout man eats at day or night. Moreover, the structural form of *arthāpatti* is not like the D.S. So, the first premise of D.S. is not used in case of *arthāpatti* (presumption). However, it is important to note that such types of form of Disjunctive Syllogism is included in deductive argument which is also the expressive form of inference. Because the form expressed in the language of inference is called logic. But *arthāpatti* is quite different from inference which is discussed in the section **….** Thus, it is observed that a student of Western philosophy who explains *arthāpatti* (presumption) through the disjunctive syllogism is not the right one.

6.7 *Arthāpatti* in Literature and Daily Life:

In this mundane world, there are sentences that are used by different eminent poets or creative persons which may appear as meaningless. Such types of sentences become meaningful when they are understood through the help of *arthāpatti* (presumption). It can explain through the help of an example. The sentence "*āmāke āmār mato thākte dāo*…" a word-to-word meaning may be translated as "let me stay as myself" which does not convey anything significant. Let us explain. The first '*āmā*', i.e., '*āmāke*' denotes the embodied self, having some relation with society. But

the second '*āmā*', i.e., '*āmār*' indicates being as such which is the dis-embodied self as such, self as such. Now it is clear that both types of '*āmā*' are not equal in meaning. If so, how can such type difference be known and make the sentence meaningful? Such type of inconsistency can be removed if we assume both types of '*āmā*' as different, i.e., the first '*āmā*' denotes the embodied self and the second '*āmā*' indicates the dis-embodied self. By employing *arthāpatti* the meaning of the mentioned sentence may convey "I am a little with myself want to meet up …" that is, the embodied self is wanted to be like the dis-embodied self.

We have vehemently used such types of sentences in our daily life as well as in literature also. Such types of sentences cannot be produced in any sense otherwise the acceptance of *arthāpatti* (presumption). Here, *anumāna* cannot play any role. The Naiyāyikas may say that such types of sentences can be meaningful through *anumāna*. But, if we closely scrutinize, it has been seen that *anumāna* cannot play any role to reconcile the proper meaning of such types of sentences. The embodied self is itself a mundane entity, but the dis-embodied self is beyond the mundane world. So, how can Naiyāyikas establish the invariable concomitance between the embodied self and the dis-embodied self? *Anumāna* cannot possible in these cases due to the impossibility of invariable concomitance (*vyāpti*). Furthermore, it is questionable to accept the dis-embodied self from the Naiyāyikas position, because the dis-embodied self is an imperceptible entity. According to Naiyāyikas, such types of imperceptible entities can be known through the *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna*. However, the acceptance of *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna* itself is questionable due to its impossibility of invariable concomitance (*vyāpti*).

Here, the important point is that an imperceptible entity always can be known through *arthāpatti* (presumption). That is why the acceptance of *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna* is questionable. However, the *sāmānyatodṛṣṭa anumāna* is dealt with the class concept, and the concept of class itself is imperceptible. This view is also said by Professor Srilekha Datta, the great scholar of Jadavpur University: "He [Nārāyaṇa Bhaṭṭa] rejects Nyāya-Vaiśeṣika philosopher's view of *sāmānyataḥdṛṣṭa anumāna* on the ground that imperceptible entities are not inferable, they can be known by means

of *arthāpatti pramāṇa* (postulation), so *sāmānyataḥdṛṣṭa* inference cannot be an inference about imperceptible *sādhya* as the Nyāya-Vaiśeṣika philosophers hold."[207]

6.8 Epilogue:

So far as our whole discussion goes, we have come across several arguments for and against on independency of *arthāpatti* (presumption). We have tried our best to explain and examine some of the arguments. Honestly speaking, it is really very difficult to pass any conclusive remark about whether *arthāpatti* (presumption) is an independent and separate instrument of valid cognition or not. However, in spite of that, if the question arises, which one of the two views is stronger? In reply, it can be positively said that the view of the Mīmāṁsā and the Advaita Vedānta schools are more substantial than the view of the Nyāya and Sāṁkhya schools. The position of the Mīmāṁsā and the Advaita Vedānta schools that *arthāpatti* (presumption) is an independent and separate instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) can be substantiated on the strength of the following arguments.

In an inference in Indian logic, inconsistency between premises is not taken as an element of inference, but there is the element of conflict or inconsistency in *arthāpatti* (presumption). *Arthāpatti* (presumption) starts its journey from the very conflict of a known fact. This is not true in the case of inference. Inference starts its journey with the cognition of the probans (*liṅga*) with the subject (*pakṣa*) and the presence of the probans with the probandum, i.e., the consistency of the presence of the probans with the subject and the presence of the probans with the probandum and from such consistent copresence the deduction of the copresence of the probandum with the subject. Besides this, the very aim of the journey of *arthāpatti* (presumption) is to resolve the conflict in question. But, the aim of inference is to reach the cognition

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[207] Datta, Srilekha. '*Types of Inference in Indian Logic*', In *Foundations of Logic and Language: Some Philosophical Issues in Indian Logic*, Srilekha datta and Amita Chatterjee (Ed.), Jadavpur Studies in Philosophy Third Series, Centre of Advance Study in Philosophy Jadavpur University, Kolkatta, in collaboration with Allied Publishers Limited, New Delhi, 2003, p. 15.

of the probandum (*sādhya*), or, the cognition of the copresence of the probandum with the subject. According to D. M. Datta,

> "Inference and postulation [presumption] – anumāna and arthapātti [*arthāpatti*] – are two opposite, and yet complementary processes. The first tries to find out what *follows* from given premises, whereas the second tries to find out what is *presupposed* by the given and explains the given by showing its grounds".[208]

There is also another fundamental difference between the process of inference and the process of *arthāpatti* (presumption). In the case of inference, the uncommon cause (*karaṇa*) is the combination of two cognitions, the cognition of the probans and the cognition of the probandum, which is technically called *parāmarśa* (the confirmatory cognition). In *parāmarśa*, the two cognitions, i.e., the probans is so closely related to the cognition of the probandum that the latter can necessarily be deduced from the former one. In the stock example of inference given by the Nyāya school, the cognition of smoke is necessarily related to the cognition of fire. That is why the cognition of fire can necessarily be deduced from the cognition of smoke. However, this is not true in the case of *arthāpatti* (presumption). In *arthāpatti* (presumption), the cognition which stands for the un-common cause (*karaṇa*) is the cognition of the conflict between two facts. In the stock example of *arthāpatti* (presumption), the two facts between which conflict arises are the cognition that Devadatta is alive and the cognition that is absent in his house, but the relationship between these two facts is not necessary as the relationship between the cognition of smoke and the cognition of fire. Consequently, one cannot be necessarily deduced from another. Say, for example, from the cognition of the fact that Devadatta is alive, and we cannot necessarily come to the cognition that he is absent from the house. Again, from the cognition that Devadatta is absent in his house, we cannot necessarily conclude that Devadatta is alive. Thus, it is seen that the nature of *karaṇa* in inference is fundamentally different from the nature of *karaṇa* in *arthāpatti* (presumption); and we know that another name of *karaṇa* is *pramāṇa* (instrument of valid cognition). So,

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[208] Datta, D. M. *The Six Ways of Knowing*, University of Calcutta, Kolkata, 2014, p. 206.

the very question of reducing *arthāpatti* (presumption) into inference simply does not arise.

It cannot be said that such type of *arthāpatti* (presumption) can be reduced to inference, i.e., *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*. Actually, what we have seen for the case of inference is that we establish probandum (*sādhya*) in the subject (*pakṣa*) through the help of probans (*hetu*). But in the case of *arthāpatti* (presumption), we have assumed something more or extra something so that the statement involving the direct relation of invariable concomitance between the probans and probandum which is not available in case of *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*, can be established indirectly. Here, we may put forward an Advatin's statement, i.e., "*Brahman satyaṁ jaganmithyā…*". Here, the *Brahman* is the only real entity and the world is false. Now, the question arises: if the *Brahman* is the only real entity and the world is false, then how can we illustrate the present world where we are living? Here, Advaita Vedāntin Śaṁkarācārya resolves this controversy very beautifully by the acceptance of *māyā*. Here, he assumes *māyā* for resolving the controversy. The assumption of *māyā* is called *arthāpatti* (presumption). Actually, this world is real in the practical sense, but the world is unreal in the ultimate sense. So, the question arises: is it possible to give a tenable answer for resolving the aforesaid controversy following the Naiyāyikas concept of *pramāṇa*? Someone may say that such type of controversy can be resolved through inference, i.e., *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*. But here our opinion is that, if we closely scrutinize, we would see that the *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna* is a negative process, but *arthāpatti* (presumption) is a positive process in its nature. Also, another very important point is that we arrange the first premise by assuming some new alternative in the case of inference which is not followed in case of *kevlānvayī-anumāna*. It is necessary to assume some new alternative in the case of *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*. But, by which process one can assume this new alternative? Here obviously Naiyāyika should not say the process is *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*, because it will convey the fallacy of circularity. The fundamental problem regarding the locus of co-existence between probans and probandum in the case of *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*. Actually, *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna* is not possible as there are no instances of co-existence between probans and probandum in a locus. It is clear from the well-known example of *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna* what we have mentioned earlier is

'*pṛthivī itarebhyaḥ bhidyate gandhavattvāt*', i.e., the earth is different from other elements, because it has a smell. The instance of negative invariable concomitance would be put forward as 'whatever is not different from other entities has no smell' (like water, fire, etc.). Contrarily, if we set up a positive concomitance, i.e., 'whatever is having smell would be different from non-earth'. And by posing this instance, we cannot instantiate an example where all varieties of the earth may come under *pakṣa*, i.e., the earth. Therefore, due to unavailability of the co-existence between probans and probandum in favour of *kevala-vyatirekī anumāna*, the Naiyāyika's view on *arthāpatti* is untenable.

What exactly we want to say is that our goal is to know reality through an instrument of valid cognition. Now, if we are found a simple process to establish reality then we should avoid the complex process. Here, Advaita Vedāntins accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) to establish their metaphysical standpoint. So, *arthāpatti* (presumption) is accepted by Mīmāṁsā and Vedānta schools as an independent and separate instrument of valid cognition according to their metaphysical standpoint. Hence, one should accept *arthāpatti* (presumption) as an epistemological instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*) by which an object can be known.

From the aforesaid discussion, we can say that *arthāpatti* (presumption) is not only different from inference; but also, is an independent instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*). When an instrument of cognition can be recognized as a *pramāṇa* is purely dependent upon the fact that whether cognition ascertained through it is valid or not. No one including the Naiyāyikas, the champions of logic, questions the validity of the cognition ascertained through *arthāpatti* (presumption). In the stock example, no one doubts the fact that Devadatta is outside of his house. Thus, it is resolved that *arthāpatti* (presumption) is an independent and separate instrument of valid cognition (*pramāṇa*).